

1. Theoretical Background

1.1. Rydberg atoms

1.2. Topological symmetry protected phases

1.2.1. Introduction to topological phases

Time-reversal symmetry

Time reversal symmetry is represented by an anti-unitary operator T . The effect of time-reversal on an operator is the following.

$$\hat{O} \rightarrow T\hat{O}T^{-1},$$

with $T^{-1} = T^\dagger$, as the norm of vectors has to be conserved. T can be decomposed into two operators $T = \tau K$, where K is the complex conjugation operator acting on everything to the right. T can satisfy one of conditions

$$T^2 = \pm 1$$

For spin-less particles in real space usually $\tau = \text{id}$ and $T^2 = 1$, whereas for particles with spin $\tau = -i\sigma_y$ can be chosen in real space, which fulfills $T^2 = -1$.

Take a look at the momentum space Hamiltonian without spin degrees of freedom

$$H = \sum_{\mathbf{k}} H(\mathbf{k}) a_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger a_{\mathbf{k}}$$
$$\text{with } a_{\mathbf{k}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{N^d}} \sum_{\mathbf{R}} e^{-i\mathbf{k}\mathbf{R}} a_{\mathbf{R}}$$

Time-reversal transforms the operators according to

$$T a_{\mathbf{R}} T^{-1} = a_{\mathbf{R}}$$
$$\Rightarrow T a_{\mathbf{k}} T^{-1} = a_{-\mathbf{k}}$$

Symmetry regarding time-reversal ($H = THT^{-1}$) has thus the form

$$H = THT^{-1}$$
$$= \sum_{\mathbf{k}} H^*(\mathbf{k}) a_{-\mathbf{k}}^\dagger a_{-\mathbf{k}}$$
$$= \sum_{\mathbf{k}} H^*(-\mathbf{k}) a_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger a_{\mathbf{k}}$$
$$\iff H(\mathbf{k}) = H^*(-\mathbf{k})$$

1.2.2. Winding Number

A chiral Hamiltonian is defined through the property, that it anticommutes with a unitary hermitian operator Γ

$$\Gamma H \Gamma = -H \quad \text{with} \quad \Gamma^2 = 1. \quad (1.1)$$

From this property follows that the Hamiltonian can be written in block off-diagonal form

$$H = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & h \\ h^\dagger & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (1.2)$$

where h is, in general, a non-Hermitian matrix. This structure also applies for the matrix in momentum space and allows the definition of a winding number, which characterizes the topological properties of the system. In the basis of Eq. (1.2) the chiral operator Γ is diagonal and can be written as

$$\Gamma = \begin{pmatrix} \mathbb{1} & 0 \\ 0 & -\mathbb{1} \end{pmatrix}. \quad (1.3)$$

If the Hamiltonian is 2×2 dimensional, the winding number can be defined through the decomposition of H in terms of the Pauli matrices

$$H = \mathbf{n} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (1.4)$$

where $\mathbf{n} = (n_x, n_y, 0)$ is a vector in the xy -plane. The winding number is then given by the winding of the vector $\mathbf{n}$ around the origin when traversing the Brillouin zone. Identifying the xy -plane of $\mathbf{n}$ with the complex plane, which defines a path $\mathbf{n}(k) \rightarrow \gamma(k)$, the winding number can be calculated through

$$w = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \oint_{\gamma_k} \frac{1}{z} dz = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \frac{1}{\gamma(k)} \frac{d\gamma(k)}{dk}.$$

In terms of the Hamiltonian above this reads

$$w = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \frac{h'(k)}{h(k)}.$$

Generalizing the winding number to higher dimensional Hamiltonians is possible through the use of the block off-diagonal form. The winding number then reads [1, 2]

$$w = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \text{Tr} [h^{-1}(k) \partial_k h(k)].$$

Diagonalizing h as $h = S \Lambda S^{-1}$ with the diagonal matrix $\Lambda = \text{diag}(\lambda_1, \lambda_2, \dots)$ and the invertible matrix S , the trace can be rewritten as

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Tr} [h^{-1} \partial_k h] &= \text{Tr} [S \Lambda^{-1} S^{-1} \partial_k (S \Lambda S^{-1})] \\ &= \text{Tr} [\Lambda^{-1} \partial_k \Lambda + S^{-1} \partial_k S + (\partial_k S^{-1}) S] \\ \text{Tr} [S^{-1} \partial_k S + S \partial_k S^{-1}] &= \text{Tr} [\partial_k (S S^{-1})] = 0, \\ \Rightarrow \text{Tr} [h^{-1} \partial_k h] &= \text{Tr} [\Lambda^{-1} \partial_k \Lambda] = \sum_i \frac{\partial_k \lambda_i}{\lambda_i} = \partial_k \left(\sum_i \ln(\lambda_i) \right) = \partial_k \ln(\det[h]). \end{aligned}$$

Another useful definition of the winding number is through the so-called Q -matrix, which is defined through the projectors onto the eigenstates of the Hamiltonian. As the Hamiltonian is chiral, the eigenvalues come in pairs $\pm E$. We introduce a labeling of the eigenvalues, such that $E_j = -E_{-j}$ with $j = 1, 2, \dots, N$ and N being half the dimension of the Hamiltonian. The corresponding eigenstates are labeled accordingly ($|\psi_j\rangle$) and posses the property $\Gamma |\psi_j\rangle = |\psi_{-j}\rangle$. The Q -matrix is defined as

$$Q = \sum_{j=1}^N (|\psi_j\rangle \langle \psi_j| - |\psi_{-j}\rangle \langle \psi_{-j}|).$$

As a consequence of the chiral symmetry, the Q -matrix anticommutes with Γ and can therefore be written in block off-diagonal form in the basis, where Γ is diagonal, which is also the case in which H is block off-diagonal.

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma Q \Gamma &= \sum_{j=1}^N (|\psi_{-j}\rangle \langle \psi_{-j}| - |\psi_j\rangle \langle \psi_j|) = -Q \\ \Rightarrow Q &= \begin{pmatrix} 0 & q \\ q^\dagger & 0 \end{pmatrix} \end{aligned}$$

The fact that the winding number of the q -matrix is the same as that of h can be shown with the help of the following two properties.

$$\begin{aligned} Q^2 = 1 & \Rightarrow qq^\dagger = \mathbb{1}, \quad q^\dagger q = \mathbb{1} \\ QHQ = H & \Rightarrow qh^\dagger q = h^\dagger \end{aligned}$$

From the second property follows that $q^\dagger h = h^\dagger q$. Thus $h^\dagger q$ is a hermitian matrix and therefore has no winding number, since the eigenvalues are real. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= \text{Tr} [q^\dagger (h^\dagger)^{-1} \partial_k (h^\dagger q)] \\ &= \text{Tr} [q q^\dagger (h^\dagger)^{-1} \partial_k h^\dagger + h^\dagger (h^\dagger)^{-1} q^\dagger \partial_k q] \\ \Rightarrow \text{Tr} [q^{-1} \partial_k q] &= -\text{Tr} [(h^\dagger)^{-1} \partial_k h^\dagger] \\ &= \text{Tr} [h^{-1} \partial_k h] \end{aligned}$$

There is another useful property, for which we consider the basis in which $\Gamma = \sigma_z \otimes \mathbb{1}_N$. This is the same diagonal basis as previously used. In this basis we can represent all eigenvalues of H as a stack of N -component vectors. The eigenvector for negative energies is written as

$$|\psi_i^-\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{pmatrix} |h_{1i}\rangle \\ |h_{2i}\rangle \end{pmatrix} \quad i \in \{1, \dots, N\}$$

Because of the chirality of the Hamiltonian the eigenvector with positive energy is already determined by this choice and reads

$$|\psi_i^+\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{pmatrix} |h_{1i}\rangle \\ -|h_{2i}\rangle \end{pmatrix}$$

The matrix Q is represented in the following form

$$\begin{aligned} Q &= \sum_i \begin{pmatrix} 0 & |h_{1i}\rangle \langle h_{2i}| \\ |h_{2i}\rangle \langle h_{1i}| & 0 \end{pmatrix} \\ \Rightarrow q &= \sum_i |h_{1i}\rangle \langle h_{2i}| \end{aligned}$$

If we now compute the kernel of the winding number with respect to q we get

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Tr}[q^\dagger \partial_k q] &= \text{Tr} \left[\sum_{i,j} |h_{2i}\rangle \langle h_{1i}| \partial_k (|h_{1j}\rangle \langle h_{2j}|) \right] \\ &= \sum_{i,j} \text{Tr} [|h_{2i}\rangle \langle h_{1i}| (\partial_k |h_{1j}\rangle) \langle h_{2j}|] + \sum_{i,j} \text{Tr} [|h_{2i}\rangle \langle h_{1i}| |h_{1j}\rangle (\partial_k \langle h_{2j}|)] \\ &= \sum_i \langle h_{1i}| (\partial_k |h_{1i}\rangle) + \sum_i (\partial_k \langle h_{2i}|) |h_{2i}\rangle \end{aligned}$$

When computing the winding number the second term contributes with a minus sign compared to its complex conjugated self, i.e.

$$\int_{\text{BZ}} dk (\partial_k \langle h_{2i}|) |h_{2i}\rangle = - \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \langle h_{2i}| (\partial_k |h_{2i}\rangle)$$

Thus the winding number reads

$$\begin{aligned} w &= \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \text{Tr}[q^\dagger \partial_k q] \\ &= \frac{1}{2\pi i} \sum_i \int_{\text{BZ}} dk (\langle h_{1i}| \partial_k |h_{1i}\rangle - \langle h_{2i}| \partial_k |h_{2i}\rangle) \end{aligned}$$

This can be expressed with respect to the full eigenvectors of the Hamiltonian via

$$\begin{aligned} w &= \frac{1}{\pi i} \sum_i \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \langle \psi_i^- | \partial_k | \psi_i^- \rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{\pi i} \sum_i \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \langle \psi_i^+ | \partial_k | \psi_i^- \rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{2\pi i} \sum_i \int_{\text{BZ}} dk (\langle h_{1i}| \partial_k |h_{1i}\rangle - \langle h_{2i}| \partial_k |h_{2i}\rangle) \end{aligned}$$

The quantity $\sum_i \langle \Gamma \psi_i^- | \partial_k | \psi_i^- \rangle$ can be related to a polarisation [3].

1.2.3. Mathematical approach to the BdG Hamiltonian

This chapter will start with first recapitalizing the second quantization from a mathematical point of view. Beginning with a Hilbert space $\mathfrak{h}$ for a single particle, this shall be embedded into the large Fock space. The first step is to consider the M -particle space $\mathfrak{f}_M = \otimes_{i=1}^M \mathfrak{h}$. The Fock space is then the direct sum over all particle numbers

$$\mathfrak{F} = \bigoplus_{M=0}^{\infty} \mathfrak{f}_M$$

I want to introduce a more mathematical approach to the Hamiltonian.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{H} &= \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{a}^\dagger)^t h \mathbf{a} + \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{a}^t h \mathbf{a}^\dagger + \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{a}^\dagger)^t \Delta \mathbf{a}^\dagger + \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{a}^t \Delta^\dagger \mathbf{a}, \quad h = h^\dagger, \quad \Delta = \Delta^t \\ &= \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{h} + \bar{\mathbf{h}} + \Delta + \Delta^\dagger) \end{aligned}$$

This can be written in matrix form as

$$\mathcal{H} = \frac{1}{2} \begin{pmatrix} \mathbf{a}^\dagger \\ \mathbf{a} \end{pmatrix}^t \tilde{A} \begin{pmatrix} \mathbf{a} \\ \mathbf{a}^\dagger \end{pmatrix}, \quad \tilde{A} = \begin{pmatrix} h & \Delta \\ \Delta^\dagger & h \end{pmatrix}$$

In the topological framework we want to consider single-particle Hamiltonians, defined on a single particle space $\mathfrak{h} = \mathbb{C}^N \otimes \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ where $\mathbb{C}^N$ treats the internal degrees of freedom of each unit cell and $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ represents the lattice structure. One can then define

$$\mathbf{h} : \mathfrak{h} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}.$$

But the Δ -terms are two-particle operators. The solution to this problem is to interpret the creation part of the stacked operator vector as operators in a hole-space, i.e. hole-annihilation operators and then treating holes and particles as independent degrees of freedom. I show here how this reinterpretation can be carried out. Take for example the last term of the Hamiltonian. It takes two particles and annihilates them, it can be viewed as bilinear form on the two particle space, reducing the particle space by two particles

$$\Delta^\dagger : \mathfrak{h} \times \mathfrak{h} \rightarrow \mathbb{C} : |\psi\rangle |\phi\rangle \mapsto \Delta^\dagger(|\psi\rangle |\phi\rangle)$$

But for plugging in a certain vector $|\psi\rangle$ and leaving the other spot open, we can define a map $\tilde{\Delta}^\dagger(|\psi\rangle) : \mathfrak{h} \rightarrow \mathcal{L}(\mathfrak{h}, \mathbb{C}) \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}^*$, where $\mathcal{L}(\mathfrak{h}, \mathbb{C})$ is the space of linear maps from $\mathfrak{h}$ to $\mathbb{C}$. But each such map can be represented in the dual space by a vector $\mathcal{L}(\mathfrak{h}, \mathbb{C}) \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}^* : \Delta^\dagger(|\psi\rangle, \cdot) \mapsto |\tilde{\Delta}^\dagger(\psi)\rangle \in \mathfrak{h}^*$ such that $\Delta^\dagger(|\psi\rangle |\phi\rangle) = \langle \tilde{\Delta}^\dagger(\psi) | \phi \rangle$. But the linearity of $\Delta^\dagger$ results in

$$|\tilde{\Delta}^\dagger(\lambda\psi)\rangle = \bar{\lambda} |\tilde{\Delta}^\dagger(\psi)\rangle$$

This makes $\tilde{\Delta}^\dagger$ an anti-linear operation. One can resolve this issue by introduce a different space $\bar{\mathfrak{h}}$ which possesses a scalar multiplication of the form

$$\cdot : \mathbb{C} \times \bar{\mathfrak{h}} \rightarrow \bar{\mathfrak{h}} : (\lambda, |\varphi\rangle) \mapsto \bar{\lambda} |\varphi\rangle$$

By this way one can define a linear operator over single particle Hamiltonians

$$\Delta_s^\dagger : \mathfrak{h} \rightarrow \bar{\mathfrak{h}} : |\psi\rangle \mapsto |\tilde{\Delta}^\dagger(\psi)\rangle$$

In a similar way one can define

$$\begin{aligned} \Delta : \mathbb{C} &\rightarrow \mathfrak{h} \times \mathfrak{h} : 1 \mapsto \Delta |\psi\rangle |\phi\rangle \\ &\leadsto \Delta_s : \bar{\mathfrak{h}} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h} : |\psi\rangle \mapsto \langle \psi | \Delta(1) = \Delta |\phi\rangle \end{aligned}$$

where Δ_s can be divided into a simple linear map $M : \bar{\mathfrak{h}} \rightarrow \mathfrak{h}$ that maps each basis vector $|b\rangle_{\bar{\mathfrak{h}}}$ in $\bar{\mathfrak{h}}$ to the appropriate basis vector $|b\rangle_{\mathfrak{h}}$ in $\mathfrak{h}$, thus $\bar{\lambda}|b\rangle_{\bar{\mathfrak{h}}} \mapsto \lambda|b\rangle_{\mathfrak{h}}$, followed by adjunction and multiplication with $\Delta(1)$.

$$\begin{aligned} \Delta_s : \bar{\mathfrak{h}} &\rightarrow \mathfrak{h} : |\psi\rangle \mapsto (M(|\psi\rangle))^{\dagger} \Delta(1) = \Delta|\phi\rangle \\ \leadsto \Delta : \mathbb{C} &\rightarrow \mathfrak{h} \times \mathfrak{h} : 1 \mapsto M(|\psi\rangle_{\bar{\mathfrak{h}}}) \Delta_s(|\psi\rangle_{\bar{\mathfrak{h}}}) \end{aligned}$$

At this state one identify the space $\mathfrak{h}$ with the single particle space and $\bar{\mathfrak{h}}$ with the single hole-space, where particle and holes are interpreted as independent degrees of freedom. The total space is than represented by the Nambu-spinor $(|\psi\rangle_{\mathfrak{h}}, |\phi\rangle_{\bar{\mathfrak{h}}})$ with particle degrees of freedom $|\psi\rangle$ and hole degrees of freedom $|\phi\rangle$. This lets the effect of the Hamiltonian on such a Nambu-state be written as

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{H} \begin{pmatrix} |\psi\rangle \\ |\phi\rangle \end{pmatrix} &= \begin{pmatrix} \mathbf{h} & \Delta \\ \Delta^{\dagger} & \bar{\mathbf{h}} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} |\psi\rangle \\ |\phi\rangle \end{pmatrix} \\ \text{with } \bar{\mathbf{h}} : \bar{\mathfrak{h}} &\rightarrow \bar{\mathfrak{h}} \end{aligned}$$

The space $\mathfrak{h} = \mathbb{C}^N \otimes \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ can be structured by the canonical basis B for $\mathbb{C}^N$ combined with a basis for $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$. As basis of $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ one can choose all functions $\{f_z | z \in \mathbb{Z}^d\}$ with $f_z : \mathbb{Z}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{C} : x \mapsto \delta_{x,z}$, which is the canonical discrete position basis $f_z =: |z\rangle$. For $\bar{\mathfrak{h}}$ one can use the same basis for the position combined with a basis of $\mathbb{C}^N$ with a different scalar multiplication. Each single particle operator can be separated into operators that act on the internal system ($\mathbb{C}^N$) of a unit cell and one, that mediates between unit cells u^x . Considering periodic boundaries the operators only depend on the distance x between the cells and one can write for example

$$\mathbf{h} = \sum_x h_x u^x$$

where $h_x : \mathbb{C}^N \rightarrow \mathbb{C}^N$ treats the internal degrees of freedom and $u^x : \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d) \rightarrow \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ is just the shift operator. The Fourier transform is a map to the d-dimensional torus $\mathcal{F} : \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d) \rightarrow \mathbb{T}^d = (-\pi, \pi] \times \dots \times (-\pi, \pi]$. Fourier transforming a state in the bracket notation can be written as an operator $\int_{\mathbb{T}^d}^{\oplus} dk \sum_x e^{-ikx} |k\rangle \langle x|$. With respect to k the sum goes over a continuous parameter space which is indicated by the integral symbol. $\{|k\rangle | k \in \mathbb{T}^d\}$ is here a basis of the d-dimensional torus in the same way as $\{|x\rangle | x \in \mathbb{Z}^d\}$ is a basis for the discrete lattice. By splitting a state in internal and lattice degrees of freedom one can write $|\psi\rangle = |\psi_{\text{int}}\rangle |\psi_{\text{Lat}}\rangle \in \mathfrak{h}$, $|\phi\rangle = |\phi_{\text{int}}\rangle |\phi_{\text{Lat}}\rangle \in \bar{\mathfrak{h}}$, and as usual $\psi(y) = |\psi_{\text{int}}\rangle \langle y | \psi_{\text{Lat}}\rangle$, where y is the position of a unit cell.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{F}(\psi)(k) &= \langle k | \mathcal{F}(\psi) \rangle = \sum_y e^{-iky} \psi(y) \\ \mathcal{F}(\phi)(k) &= \sum_y e^{iky} \phi(y) \end{aligned}$$

A new basis for $|\psi\rangle_k$ is therefore $\{|b_{\text{int}}\rangle | k\rangle | b \in B, k \in \mathbb{T}^d\}$. One can determine the Fourier transform of the operators by their action on the states.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{F}(\mathbf{h}\psi)(k) &= \sum_{y,x} e^{-iky} h_x u^x \psi(y) \\ &= \sum_{y,x} e^{-iky} h_x \psi(y-x) \\ &= \sum_{z,x} e^{-ikz} e^{-ikx} h_x \psi(z) \\ &= \sum_x e^{-ikx} h_x \mathcal{F}(\psi)(k) \\ &=: \mathbf{h}(k) \mathcal{F}(\psi)(k) =: \mathbf{h}(k) \psi(k) \end{aligned}$$

As $\bar{\mathbf{h}} = \sum_x \bar{h}_x u^x$, where the bar means complex conjugation, we can write

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{F}(\bar{\mathbf{h}}\phi)(k) &= \sum_{y,x} e^{iky} \bar{h}_x u^x \phi(y) \\ &= \sum_x e^{ikx} \bar{h}_x \mathcal{F}(\phi)(k) = \overline{\sum_x e^{-ikx} h_x \mathcal{F}(\phi)(k)} \\ &= \bar{\mathbf{h}}(k) \phi(k)\end{aligned}$$

For $\Delta_s = \sum_x \Delta_x u^x$ and $\Delta_s^\dagger = \sum_x \Delta_x^\dagger u^x$ we find the Fourier transform as

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{F}(\Delta_s \phi)(k) &= \sum_{y,x} e^{-iky} \Delta_x u^x \phi(y) \\ &= \sum_x e^{-ikx} \Delta_x \mathcal{F}(\phi)(-k) \\ &= \Delta_s(k) \phi(-k) \\ \mathcal{F}(\Delta_s^\dagger \psi)(k) &= \sum_{y,x} e^{iky} \Delta_x^\dagger u^x \psi(y) \\ &= \sum_x e^{ikx} \Delta_x^\dagger \mathcal{F}(\psi)(-k) = \overline{\sum_x e^{-ikx} \Delta_x \mathcal{F}(\psi)(-k)} \\ &= \Delta_s^\dagger(k) \psi(-k)\end{aligned}$$

If we order the space in such a form that $|\psi\rangle = \int \oplus_k (\psi(k), \phi(-k))$ one can write the Hamiltonian a block diagonal $\mathcal{H} = \oplus_k A_k$ with

$$A_k = \begin{pmatrix} \mathbf{h}(k) & \Delta_s(k) \\ \Delta_s^\dagger(-k) & \bar{\mathbf{h}}(-k) \end{pmatrix}$$

The dynamical matrix that has to be analyzed with respect to topological properties is still

$$H_k = \begin{pmatrix} \mathbf{h}(k) & \Delta_s(k) \\ -\Delta_s^\dagger(-k) & -\bar{\mathbf{h}}(-k) \end{pmatrix}$$

If the matrix H_k has chiral symmetry, which is true if H has chiral symmetry, this means that there is a unitary matrix U such that

$$U H_k U^\dagger = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & S \\ T & 0 \end{pmatrix} =: H'$$

The J matrix transforms under U to J' , which is still hermitian and squares to the identity. Setting

$$J' = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ B^\dagger & C \end{pmatrix}$$

one can write the explicitly

$$\begin{aligned}H'^\dagger J' &= J' H' \\ \Leftrightarrow \begin{pmatrix} T^\dagger B^\dagger & T^\dagger C \\ S^\dagger A & S^\dagger B \end{pmatrix} &= \begin{pmatrix} B T & A S \\ C T & B^\dagger S \end{pmatrix} \\ \Leftrightarrow S &= A^{-1} T^\dagger C \\ T &= B^{-1} T^\dagger B^\dagger \\ S &= (B^\dagger)^{-1} S^\dagger B\end{aligned}$$

The equation $S = A^{-1} T^\dagger C$ gives the insight that calculating the winding with S or T is equivalent. This becomes clear when one remembers the definition of the winding number for a hermitian block-off-diagonal matrix with blocks h and $h^\dagger$, i.e.

$$w = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{\text{BZ}} dk \text{Tr} [h^{-1}(k) \partial_k h(k)].$$

Investigating the kernel of the integral when replacing h by S , one can put the winding of the two blocks in relation.

$$\begin{aligned}\mathrm{Tr}[S^{-1}\partial_k S] &= \mathrm{Tr}[C^{-1}(T^\dagger)^{-1}A\partial_k(A^{-1}T^\dagger C)] \\ &= \mathrm{Tr}[(T^\dagger)^{-1}\partial_k T^\dagger]\end{aligned}$$

this is the same relation as between the hermitian blocks ($w(h) = -w(h^\dagger)$). Going back to the Rydberg atom system, the computed H_k has the following form, which is independent of the geometry of the system.

$$H_k = \begin{pmatrix} R_k & P_k \\ -P_k & -R_k \end{pmatrix}$$

$$R_k = \begin{pmatrix} w(\mathbf{k}) & u(\mathbf{k}) \\ \bar{u}(\mathbf{k}) & w(\mathbf{k}) \end{pmatrix} \quad P_k = \begin{pmatrix} v(\mathbf{k}) & u(\mathbf{k}) \\ \bar{u}(\mathbf{k}) & v(\mathbf{k}) \end{pmatrix}$$

Exploiting the symmetric structure of the matrix one can write

$$\begin{aligned}H_k &= \tau_z \otimes R_k + i\tau_y \otimes P_k \\ R_k &= w(\mathbf{k})\sigma_0 + \mathrm{Re}[u(\mathbf{k})]\sigma_x - \mathrm{Im}[u(\mathbf{k})]\sigma_y \\ P_k &= v(\mathbf{k})\sigma_0 + \mathrm{Re}[u(\mathbf{k})]\sigma_x - \mathrm{Im}[u(\mathbf{k})]\sigma_y \\ \Rightarrow H_k &= w(\mathbf{k})\tau_z \otimes \sigma_0 + v(\mathbf{k})i\tau_y \otimes \sigma_0 + \mathrm{Re}[u(\mathbf{k})](\tau_z + i\tau_y) \otimes \sigma_x - \mathrm{Im}[u(\mathbf{k})](\tau_z + i\tau_y) \otimes \sigma_y\end{aligned}$$

where $\tau_\alpha, \sigma_\alpha$ $\alpha \in \{0, x, y, z\}$ are the usual Pauli matrices. Since every 4×4 matrix X can be written in the form

$$X = \sum_{\alpha, \beta \in \{0, x, y, z\}} x_{\alpha, \beta} \tau_\alpha \otimes \sigma_\beta$$

one can conclude that the only matrix commuting with H_k is the identity, i.e. $[X, H_k] = 0 \Rightarrow X = \mathbb{1}$. As no two different pauli matrices commute, the occurrence of τ_z and τ_y implies $x_{\alpha, \beta} = 0$ for $\alpha \neq 0$, similarly the occurrence of σ_x and σ_y implies $x_{\alpha, \beta} = 0$ for $\beta \neq 0$. Thus H_k is irreducible as it has no unitary symmetries. This allows to perform a topological classification. Exploiting the chiral symmetry, one can change to a basis where the chiral transformation $\Sigma_x^k = (\mathbb{1}, -\mathbb{1})$. In this basis H_k takes the form

$$H'_k = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & S_k \\ T_k & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$S_k = \begin{pmatrix} w(\mathbf{k}) - v(\mathbf{k}) & 0 \\ 0 & w(\mathbf{k}) - v(\mathbf{k}) \end{pmatrix} \quad T_k = \begin{pmatrix} w(\mathbf{k}) + v(\mathbf{k}) & 2u(\mathbf{k}) \\ 2\bar{u}(\mathbf{k}) & w(\mathbf{k}) + v(\mathbf{k}) \end{pmatrix}$$

As both matrices S_k and T_k are hermitian the Hamiltonian has vanishing winding number, indicating a topological trivial phase. This is confirmed when looking at the eigenstates inside the gap of Fig. 2.3, when $m\omega^2 = 10 V_{\max}$. I want to mention that if there are no pairing terms, i.e. $\Delta = 0$, the Hamiltonian is block diagonal and therefore not irreducible. In this case the introduction of holes is redundant and the winding number can be calculated from a single block, which can lead to non-vanishing winding numbers. It is thereby shown that the pairing terms prohibit the occurrence of topologically non-trivial phases in 1D for motional degrees of freedom stemming from a second order Taylor expansion of an interaction potential.

2. Topological Classification of motional modes in Rydberg atom arrays

The possibility of trapping atoms in optical tweezers and arranging them in arbitrary geometries has inspired the investigation of various topological properties in such arrays. One of the targets of such investigations has been the motional modes of the atoms in the array. As the atoms move in the harmonic oscillator potential of the tweezer, the interaction between atoms, which are distance dependent, also change. This leads to a coupling between the motional modes of the atoms. In this work the atoms will occupy Rydberg states leading to dipole-dipole or van der Waals interactions. There are two regimes of interest, which behave in a different way. If the trap depth is much larger than the interaction, the generation of additional motional excitations is suppressed, and only hopping of motional excitations between sites takes place. Thus topological classification can exploit the single particle property of the dynamics. In the complementary regime the excitation number is not conserved and one has to deploy a bosonic formalism for the topological classification, via the Bogoliubov de Gennes (BdG) picture, discussed in the previous chapter. In the next section it is briefly discussed why both regimes can be implemented in Rydberg atom arrays.

2.1. Parameter regimes

Important for the presence or absence of motional excitation number conservation is the ratio of interaction strength V to trap depth ω . The lifetime of the Rydberg states T , however, sets a lower bound on the interaction strength, as the dynamics induced by the interaction has to be faster than the lifetime of the Rydberg state, in order to be observed. For the regime, in which the motional excitation number is conserved, the trap depth has to be much larger than the interaction which in turn has to be much larger than this lower bound. In the following I will discuss the relevant energy scales and show that both regimes can be implemented in Rydberg atom arrays. The lifetimes for conventional Rydberg states can reach up to several hundred μs . For Circular Rydberg states the lifetimes can reach even a few ms. In both cases the trap depth (ω) can easily have a few MHz [4, 5], which sets the lower bound for the interaction strength $V \gg 1/T \sim 1 \text{ kHz}$. With the trap depth being in the MHz range, the conditions of conserved motional excitation number can be easily met, as the interactions between Rydberg atoms can be tuned in wide range from kHz to GHz. Due to this large flexibility in the interaction strength, also the complementary regime of non-conserved motional excitation number can be realized. In the following I will derive the effective Hamiltonian for the motional modes.

2.2. Model

For the topological analysis a model will be used, that only takes motional degrees of freedom into account. This can be achieved by assuming that all atoms are in the same internal state, and the interaction doesn't couple different states. The interaction that results by this is a van der Waals interaction for atoms in Rydberg states or a dipole-dipole interaction if the atoms are dressed with an external field. I will keep the form of the interaction general in the following derivation. The system consists of N atoms, which are trapped in optical tweezers with centers $\{\mathbf{R}_l\}_{l \in \{1, \dots, N\}}$. The Hamiltonian that describes the model consists of the harmonic trap potential part $\mathcal{H}_0$ and an interaction part $\mathcal{H}_I$, that depends on the position of the atoms.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{H} &= \mathcal{H}_0 + \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) \\ \text{with } \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) &= \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i,j} V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) n_i n_j \\ \text{where } V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) &= V(\mathbf{R}_i, \mathbf{R}_j) \end{aligned}$$

The operators n_i are the projectors on the internal state of the i th atom. As all atoms are assumed to be in the same internal state, the n_i become redundant and can be dropped. The interaction Hamiltonian then reads

$$\mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) = \sum_{i,j; i>j} V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})$$

The $V_{i,j}$ are formally functions of all positions $\{\mathbf{R}_l\}$, i.e. $V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})$. But of course they only depend on $\mathbf{R}_i$ and $\mathbf{R}_j$, i.e.

$$\frac{\partial V_{i,j}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_l} = 0 \quad \text{if } i \neq l \neq j$$

The displacements of the atoms from the tweezer centers $\{\delta \mathbf{R}_l\}$ are assumed to be small compared to the distance between the tweezers, which justifies a Taylor expansion of the interaction potential to second order. As shown in Appendix A this leads to an interaction Hamiltonian of the form

$$\mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l + \delta \mathbf{R}_l\}) = \sum_n \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \delta \mathbf{R}_n + \sum_{n,m} U_{n,m} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \delta \mathbf{R}_m$$

with

$$U_{n,m} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \quad \text{if } n \neq m$$

$$U_{n,n} = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{j; j \neq n} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n^2}$$

In order to allow for a quantum mechanical description of the displacements $\delta \mathbf{R}_l$ are treated as operators.

2.3. No particle number conservation

Even for a bosonic system a topological classification with respect to the Altland-Zirnbauer symmetry classes is possible. As discussed in Section ??, the concept of holes has to be introduced by rewriting the Hamiltonian in a BdG form. For this it is, however, necessary that the Hamiltonian is quadratic in the displacements. The linear term originating from the first order expansion of the interaction potential however breaks this condition. In order to remove this term, the trap centers can be redefined, such that the linear term vanishes. For this purpose the displacement operators are shifted by constant vectors $\{\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l\} = \{\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l + \mathbf{\Delta}_l\}$. In the following I will treat the 1D case and the interaction is assumed to be of the dipole-dipole type, i.e.

$$V_{dd}(\mathbf{r}) = \frac{\langle d \rangle^2}{4\pi\epsilon_0 r^3} (1 - 3(\hat{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{d}})^2) =: V_0(r) f(\hat{\mathbf{r}}) = V_0(a) \frac{a^3}{r^3} f(\hat{\mathbf{r}})$$

$$\frac{\partial V_{dd}}{\partial r_\alpha} = \frac{\langle d \rangle^2}{4\pi\epsilon_0 r^3} \frac{1}{r} \left(-3 \frac{r_\alpha}{r} + 15 \frac{r_\alpha}{r} (\hat{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{d}})^2 - 6 \hat{d}_\alpha (\hat{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{d}}) \right) =: \frac{V_0(r)}{r} g(\hat{\mathbf{r}}) = \frac{V_0(a)}{a} \frac{a^4}{r^4} g(\hat{\mathbf{r}})$$

$$\frac{\partial^2 V_{dd}}{\partial r_\alpha \partial r_\beta} = \frac{\langle d \rangle^2}{4\pi\epsilon_0 r^3} \frac{1}{r^2} \left[\delta_{\alpha\beta} (-3 + 15(\hat{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{d}})^2) - 6 \hat{d}_\alpha \hat{d}_\beta + 30 \frac{\hat{d}_\alpha r_\beta + \hat{d}_\beta r_\alpha}{r} (\hat{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{d}}) + 15 \frac{r_\alpha r_\beta}{r^2} (1 - 7(\hat{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{d}})^2) \right]$$

$$=: \frac{V_0(r)}{r^2} c(\hat{\mathbf{r}}) = \frac{V_0(a)}{a^2} \frac{a^5}{r^5} c(\hat{\mathbf{r}})$$

In the above equations d is the dipole operator, a is the distance between the tweezers and $\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{R}_2 - \mathbf{R}_1$ is the distance vector between two atoms. The hat symbol denotes vectors with unit norm. In combination with the harmonic trap potential this leads to a Hamiltonian for the shifted displacements $\{\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l\}$ of the form

$$\mathcal{H}(\{\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l\}) = \sum_i \frac{\mathbf{P}_i^2}{2m} + \sum_i \frac{1}{2} m \omega^2 (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i + \mathbf{\Delta}_i)^2 + \sum_i \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i + \mathbf{\Delta}_i) + \sum_{i,j} (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i + \mathbf{\Delta}_i) U_{i,j} (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_j + \mathbf{\Delta}_j)$$

$$= \sum_i \frac{\mathbf{P}_i^2}{2m} + \sum_i \frac{1}{2} m \omega^2 \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i^2 + \sum_{i,j} \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i U_{i,j} \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_j + \sum_i \left(\frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} + \sum_j (2 U_{j,i} + m \omega^2 \delta_{ij}) \mathbf{\Delta}_j \right) \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i,$$

where $\mathbf{P}_i$ are the momentum operators of the atoms. In the second line all constant terms have been dropped.

Thus the linear term can be removed by choosing the shift vectors $\{\Delta_i\}$ such that

$$\left(\frac{\partial H_I(\{\mathbf{R}_i\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} + \sum_j (2U_{j,i} + m\omega^2 \delta_{ij}) \Delta_j \right) = 0 \quad \forall i$$

By defining the following dimensionless quantities

$$\tilde{g}_i := \frac{a}{V_0(a)} \frac{\partial H_I(\{\mathbf{R}_i\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i}$$

$$\tilde{U}_{i,j} := \frac{a^2}{V_0(a)} 2U_{j,i}$$

the condition for the shift can be written as

$$\frac{V_0(a)}{a} G_i := \frac{V_0(a)}{a} \left(\tilde{g}_i + \sum_j W_{ij} \frac{\Delta_j}{a} \right) := \frac{V_0(a)}{a} \left(\tilde{g}_i + \sum_j \left(\tilde{U}_{j,i} + \frac{m\omega^2 a^2}{V_0(a)} \delta_{ij} \right) \frac{\Delta_j}{a} \right) = 0 \quad \forall i$$

Here $\tilde{g}$ and $\tilde{U}$ are dimensionless and the term $m\omega^2 a^2 / [V_0(a) \max(\tilde{U})] =: m\omega^2 / V_{\max}$ chosen of order 0.01-10. Now I use the two free parameters h and the angle φ_d of the dipole moment $\mathbf{d}$ to set G_i close to zero for different values of b . Close to zero means here that $\max(|G_i|)$ compared to $\sqrt{\hbar/(2m\omega)} \max(\tilde{U})/a$ is small. Here $\sqrt{\hbar/(2m\omega)}/a \sim 10^{-3}$ is the displacement from a single motional excitation in units of a .

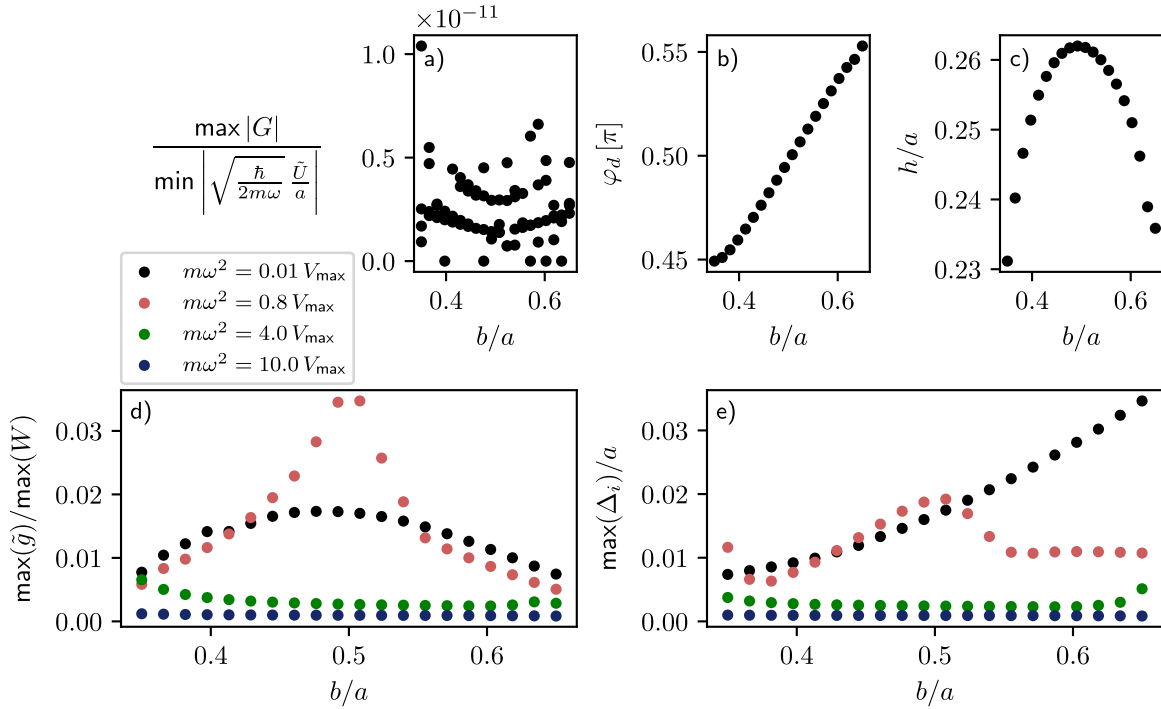


Figure 2.1: Parameters for negligible first order. For different values of $m\omega^2$ the parameters h and φ_d are tuned such that the first order is negligible. The color code indicates the value of $m\omega^2/V_{\max}$. The resulting ratio between first and second order is shown in panel a) for all considered values of $m\omega^2/V_{\max}$ 0.01, 0.8, 4 and 10. As an example the optimal parameters h and φ_d for $m\omega^2/V_{\max} = 4$ are shown in panel b) and c). The maximal shift of the trap center necessary to eliminate the first order is shown in panel e), while panel d) shows that size of the shift is mainly determined by the ratio between $\tilde{g}$ and W .

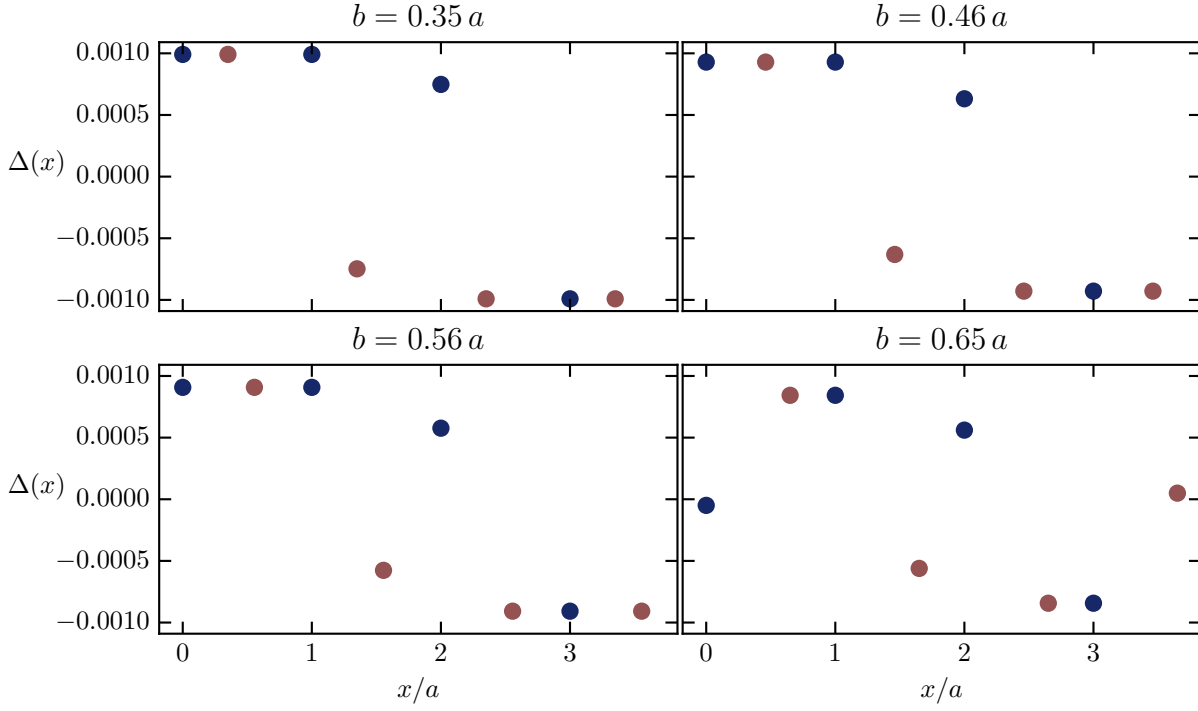


Figure 2.2: **Trap center shift.** For $m\omega^2 = 10 V_{\max}$ the shift of the trap center for each site, that tunes the linear order to zero, is shown. The length of the chain is taken as 8 atoms.

Fig. 2.1 and Fig. 2.2 tell us that the Δ -displacements are of order 10^{-2} , an order of magnitude bigger than the single motional mode displacement. Nevertheless the shift is small compared to the atomic distance a , which allows us to stick to the assumption of a periodic lattice. The shifts get smaller with increasing trap frequency. By eliminating the linear order, the Hamiltonian takes a quadratic form in the displacement and can hence be written as

$$\mathcal{H} = \sum_i \frac{\mathbf{P}_i^2}{2m} + \sum_i \frac{1}{2} m\omega^2 \delta\tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i^2 + \sum_{i,j} \delta\tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i U_{i,j} \delta\tilde{\mathbf{R}}_j$$

In second quantized form where I write the momentum and displacement operators in terms of creation and annihilation operators

$$\begin{aligned} \delta\tilde{\mathbf{R}}_n &= \sqrt{\frac{\hbar}{2m\omega}} (a_n + a_n^\dagger) \\ \mathbf{P}_n &= i\sqrt{\frac{\hbar m\omega}{2}} (a_n^\dagger - a_n) \end{aligned}$$

the total Hamiltonian reads

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{H} &= \sum_n \hbar\omega a_n^\dagger a_n + \frac{\hbar}{2m\omega} \sum_{n,m} U_{n,m} (a_n a_m + a_n^\dagger a_m^\dagger + a_n a_m^\dagger + a_n^\dagger a_m) \\ &= \mathbf{a}^\dagger A \mathbf{a} \end{aligned}$$

with $\mathbf{a} = (a_1, \dots, a_N, a_1^\dagger, \dots, a_N^\dagger)$ the vector of operators and a coupling matrix A , which establishes the BdG form of the Hamiltonian and has itself the following structure

$$A = \frac{\hbar}{2m\omega} \begin{pmatrix} \bar{U} & U \\ U & \bar{U} \end{pmatrix}$$

with $\bar{U} = U + m\omega^2$.

This allows for a topological characterization of the bosonic system, according to [6]. A first step is to consider the Heisenberg equations of motion for the operators which read

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{d}{dt} a_j &= i([H, a_j]) = -i\hbar\omega a_j - i\frac{\hbar}{2m\omega} \sum_n (U_{j,n} a_n + U_{n,j} a_n + U_{j,n} a_n^\dagger + U_{n,j} a_n^\dagger) \\
&= -i\hbar\omega a_j - i\frac{\hbar}{m\omega} \sum_n (U_{j,n} a_n + U_{j,n} a_n^\dagger) = -2i(A\vec{a})_j \\
\frac{d}{dt} a_j^\dagger &= i([H, a_j^\dagger]) = i\hbar\omega a_j^\dagger + i\frac{\hbar}{2m\omega} \sum_n (U_{j,n} a_n + U_{n,j} a_n + U_{j,n} a_n^\dagger + U_{n,j} a_n^\dagger) \\
&= 2i(A\vec{a})_{j+N}
\end{aligned}$$

This lets one write the equations of motion in a different form

$$\begin{aligned}
\Rightarrow \quad \frac{d}{dt} \vec{a} &= -i\tilde{H} \vec{a} \\
\text{where } \tilde{H} &= \frac{\hbar}{m\omega} \begin{pmatrix} \bar{U} & U \\ -U & -\bar{U} \end{pmatrix} =: \begin{pmatrix} h & \Delta \\ -\Delta & -h \end{pmatrix}
\end{aligned}$$

And it is this matrix $\tilde{H}$ that determines the topological properties of the system, since it provides the eigenmodes of the dynamics. $\tilde{H}$ is in the Bogoliubov de Gennes form and a real matrix. Therefore it is time reversal symmetric. Particle-hole symmetry is also fulfilled, as $\tilde{H}^* = -\Sigma_x \tilde{H} \Sigma_x$ with

$$\Sigma_x = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & \mathbb{1} \\ \mathbb{1} & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

As a consequence it is then also chiral symmetric, as $\tilde{H} = -\Sigma_x \tilde{H} \Sigma_x$. This puts the system in the BDI symmetry class, which allows for a topological characterization in one dimension. Since H is not hermitian it does not necessarily have only real eigenvalues. For the topological classification to be possible, the Hamiltonian has to be, however, dynamically stable, which means no complex eigenvalues are allowed, as they lead to unbounded dynamics. When looking at the spectrum of the BdG-Hamiltonian over the parameter that lets the first order be neglected, one observes always large imaginary parts. This is seen in Fig. 2.3. As a consequence the system is not classifiable by the formalism described in [6].

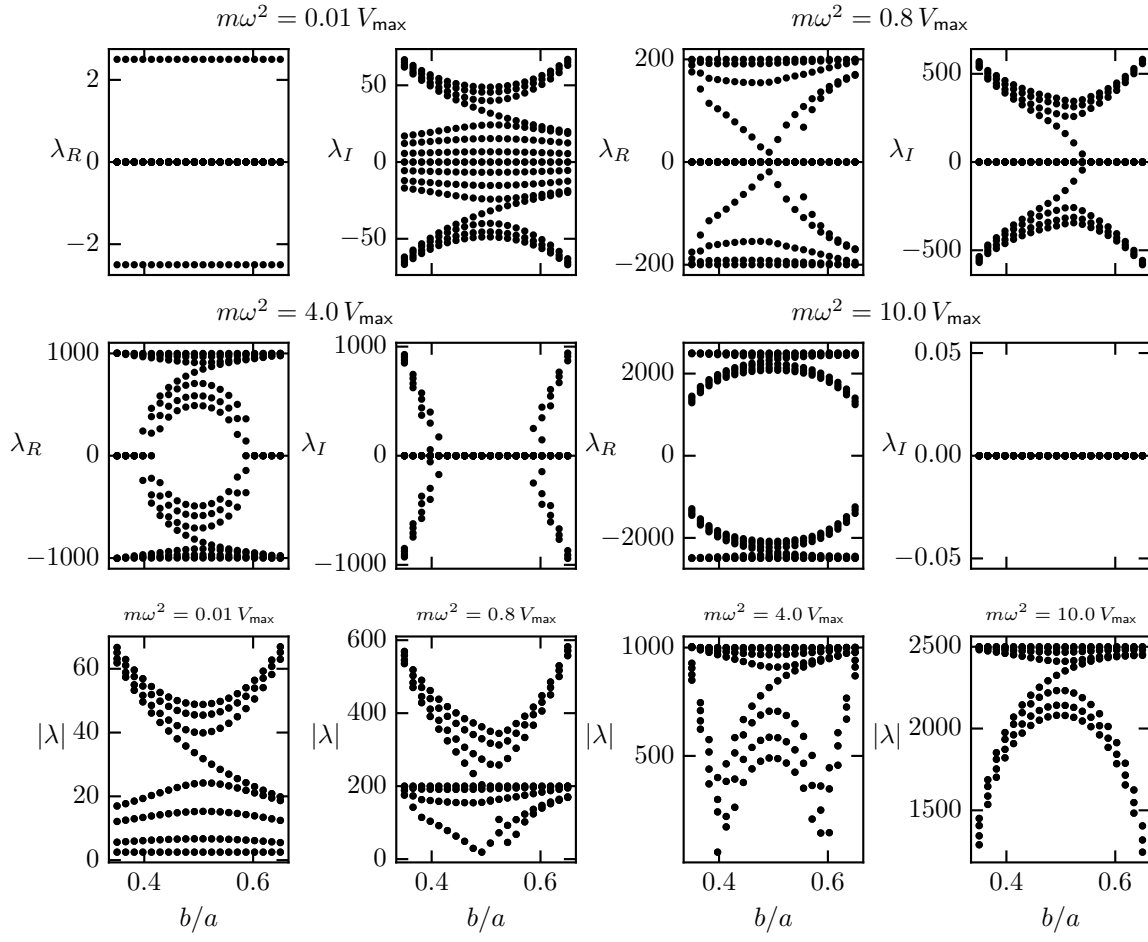


Figure 2.3: Spectrum of BdG Hamiltonian for different trap frequencies.

A. Derivation of the Hamiltonian for the chain of Rydberg atoms in optical tweezers

As described in the main text, the assumption of small displacements $\{\delta \mathbf{R}_l\}$ compared to the distance between the tweezers motivates the Taylor expansion of the interaction potential to second order.

$$\begin{aligned}
\mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l + \delta \mathbf{R}_l\}) &= \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_n \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \delta \mathbf{R}_n + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n,m} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \delta \mathbf{R}_m \\
&= \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_n \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \delta \mathbf{R}_n + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n \neq m} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \delta \mathbf{R}_m + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n=m} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \delta \mathbf{R}_m \\
&= \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_n \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \delta \mathbf{R}_n + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n \neq m} \sum_{i,j; i>j} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \delta \mathbf{R}_m \\
&\quad + \frac{1}{2} \sum_n \sum_{i,j; i>j} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \\
&= \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_n \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \delta \mathbf{R}_n + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n \neq m} \sum_{i,j; i>j} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \delta \mathbf{R}_m (\delta_{n=i,m=j} + \delta_{n=j,m=i}) \\
&\quad + \frac{1}{2} \sum_n \sum_{i,j; i>j} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_n (\delta_{n=i} + \delta_{n=j})
\end{aligned}$$

In order to allow for a quantum mechanical description the displacements $\delta \mathbf{R}_l$ are treated as operators. The second order term can be simplified by exploiting the symmetry of the second derivative and the fact that $V_{i,j}$ only depends on $\mathbf{R}_i$ and $\mathbf{R}_j$. Thus

$$\sum_{i,j; i>j} \left(\frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_i^2 + \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_j^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_j^2 \right) = \sum_{i,j; i \neq j} \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_i^2$$

and

$$\sum_{i,j; i \neq j} \left(\delta \mathbf{R}_i \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i \partial \mathbf{R}_j} \delta \mathbf{R}_j + \delta \mathbf{R}_j \frac{\partial^2 V_{j,i}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_j \partial \mathbf{R}_i} \delta \mathbf{R}_i \right) = \sum_{i,j; i \neq j} \delta \mathbf{R}_i \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i \partial \mathbf{R}_j} \delta \mathbf{R}_j$$

The interaction can therefore be written in the following form

$$\begin{aligned}
\mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l + \delta \mathbf{R}_l\}) &= \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_i \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} \delta \mathbf{R}_i + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i,j; i>j} \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i \partial \mathbf{R}_j} (\delta \mathbf{R}_i \delta \mathbf{R}_j + \delta \mathbf{R}_j \delta \mathbf{R}_i) \\
&\quad + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i,j; i \neq j} \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_i^2 \\
&= \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_i \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} \delta \mathbf{R}_i + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i,j; i \neq j} \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i \partial \mathbf{R}_j} \delta \mathbf{R}_i \delta \mathbf{R}_j \\
&\quad + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i,j; i \neq j} \frac{\partial^2 V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i^2} \delta \mathbf{R}_i^2
\end{aligned}$$

By introducing the matrix U the expanded interaction Hamiltonian takes the compact form

$$\mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l + \delta \mathbf{R}_l\}) = \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) + \sum_n \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \delta \mathbf{R}_n + \sum_{n,m} U_{n,m} \delta \mathbf{R}_n \delta \mathbf{R}_m$$

Where the constant energy shift $\mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})$ can be ignored and the matrix U is defined as

$$U_{n,m} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \quad \text{if } n \neq m$$

$$U_{n,n} = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{j; j \neq n} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n^2}$$

For an interaction that only depends on the relative distance between the atoms $\mathbf{r}_{ij} = \mathbf{R}_i - \mathbf{R}_j$, i.e. $V_{i,j}(\{\mathbf{R}_l\}) = V_{i,j}(\mathbf{R}_i - \mathbf{R}_j)$, the matrix U can be further specified. Using the fact that

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{ij}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} = \mathbb{1} = -\frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{ij}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_j}$$

the derivatives in U can be written as

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} &= \frac{\partial}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} \left(\frac{\partial V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}} \frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_m} \right) \\ &= \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}^2} \frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_m} \frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n} + \frac{\partial V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}} \frac{\partial^2 \mathbf{r}_{nm}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_n \partial \mathbf{R}_m} \\ &= -\frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}^2} \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_m^2} &= \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}^2} \frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_m} \frac{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}}{\partial \mathbf{R}_m} \\ &= \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}^2} \end{aligned}$$

Thus

$$U_{n,m} = -\frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,m}(\mathbf{r}_{nm})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nm}^2} \quad \text{if } n \neq m$$

$$U_{n,n} = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{j; j \neq n} \frac{\partial^2 V_{n,j}(\mathbf{r}_{nj})}{\partial \mathbf{r}_{nj}^2}$$

At this point I can eliminate the linear term of the Hamiltonian by introducing the trap potential

$$\mathcal{H}_0(\{\delta \mathbf{R}_l\}) = \sum_i \frac{\mathbf{P}_i^2}{2m} + \frac{1}{2} m \omega^2 \delta \mathbf{R}_i^2,$$

where $\mathbf{P}_i$ is the momentum of the i th atom. I can now shift the considered displacements from the trap centers by a constant $\{\delta \mathbf{R}_l\} = \{\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l + \mathbf{\Delta}_l\}$, where $\delta \mathbf{R}_l$ and $\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l$ are operators and $\mathbf{\Delta}_l$ are just constant vectors. Neglecting all constant terms the Hamiltonian minus the momentum term $\tilde{\mathcal{H}} = \mathcal{H} - \sum_i \mathbf{P}_i^2/2m$ up to second order reads

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{\mathcal{H}}(\{\delta \mathbf{R}_l\}) &= \sum_i \frac{1}{2} m \omega^2 (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i + \mathbf{\Delta}_i)^2 + \sum_i \frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i + \mathbf{\Delta}_i) + \sum_{i,j} (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i + \mathbf{\Delta}_i) U_{i,j} (\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_j + \mathbf{\Delta}_j) \\ &= \sum_i \frac{1}{2} m \omega^2 \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i^2 + \sum_{i,j} \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i U_{i,j} \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_j + \sum_i \left(\frac{\partial \mathcal{H}_I(\{\mathbf{R}_l\})}{\partial \mathbf{R}_i} + \sum_j (2U_{j,i} + m \omega^2 \delta_{ij}) \mathbf{\Delta}_j \right) \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_i, \end{aligned}$$

where it was used that U is symmetric. As the matrix $(2U_{j,i} + m \omega^2 \delta_{ij})$ is invertible, a set of vectors $\{\mathbf{\Delta}_n\}$ can be found such that the linear term vanishes. Thus

$$\mathcal{H}(\{\delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_l\}) = \sum_n \frac{\mathbf{P}_n^2}{2m} + \sum_n \frac{1}{2} m \omega^2 \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_n^2 + \sum_{n,m} U_{n,m} \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_n \delta \tilde{\mathbf{R}}_m$$

At this point I introduce the quantized displacements in form of the quadrature operators

$$\begin{aligned}\delta\tilde{\mathbf{R}}_n &= \sqrt{\frac{\hbar}{2m\omega}} (a_n + a_n^\dagger) \\ \mathbf{P}_n &= i\sqrt{\frac{\hbar m\omega}{2}} (a_n^\dagger - a_n)\end{aligned}$$

With that the Hamiltonian gets its final form

$$\mathcal{H} = \sum_n \hbar\omega a_n^\dagger a_n + \frac{\hbar}{2m\omega} \sum_{n,m} U_{n,m} (a_n a_m + a_n^\dagger a_m + a_n a_m^\dagger + a_n^\dagger a_m^\dagger)$$

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